

Grandma at Home: Employment Gains and Mental Health Costs for Mothers

Andrea M. K. Hall¹ and Saki Ehara²

¹*Department of Economics, Grinnell College*

²*CHECK HOW TO AFFILIATE SAKI?*

May 29, 2026

Abstract

While household composition likely has large impacts on maternal work and mental well-being, causal evidence of this relationship is sparse. We use an instrumental variable approach with partner cohabitation changes as an instrument for living with the maternal grandmother and find that multigenerational living increases hours worked and the likelihood of reporting poor mental health. These effects are not driven only by the partner cohabitation change alone and are consistent across child ages.

Keywords: multigenerational living, household composition, mental health

JEL Classifications: J12, J13, D13

1 Introduction

In the United States, the quintessential American family has been depicted as a nuclear family consisting of a breadwinning father, a homemaking mother, and their children (Olito, 2019; CSP Global, 2020). However, as housing costs rise and families face more financial pressure, the once idealized “All-American family” has become more difficult to obtain — and therefore less common. Now, 60 million Americans adults live in multigenerational households, defined as “households with more than two generations of adults” — the share of Americans living in such settings has quadrupled since 1971 (Cohn et al., 2022). Despite the increase in multigenerational living, little is known about the causal effects of multigenerational households on mothers of young children. Should the current trend continue into the future — which we may expect given the increasing costs of housing — it will be important to understand the causal effects of this type of living structure.

Living with your mother while being a mother to your own young child could impact labor and mental health in different ways. Living with at least one other adult providing financial support could reduce the need for a young mother to work, or could provide the childcare support necessary for a young mother to work the hours she actually wants or needs to work. If the multigenerational framework is supportive, a young mother living with her parents may report better mental health through stronger community or support. At the same time, multigenerational living could harm mental health if tensions with the child’s grandparents are high or if the new living arrangement requires the young mother to provide additional support to her mother. We find that multigenerational living for young mothers increases hours worked and increases the reporting of negative mental health.

The impact on hours worked is perhaps unsurprising: economic struggles are often the trigger for multigenerational living (Keene and Batson, 2010). Families in multigenerational households may benefit from a “safety net” by other adult household members and thus have lower levels of poverty and less financial stress (Paul et al., 2011; Cohn et al., 2022; Takeda et al., 2004). Additionally, multigenerational living may increase accessibility of child care

support from grandparents and extended family members (Smith, 2000). Approximately 12% of multigenerational households report that child care was a major reason for living choices (Cohn et al., 2022). If multigenerational living is an effective way to relieve the burden on parents, especially mothers, we could expect mothers to engage in more activities outside of the home, including working.

On the other hand, an increased reporting in poor mental health may feel counterintuitive at first. Multigenerational living may provide larger social networks for new mothers by maintaining connections with extended family members. Larger social networks, especially through increased familial support, have been associated with decreased depressive symptoms (Gianfredi et al., 2021). Social networks have been even found to have a causal relationship with mental health — although the inverse relationship has also been documented (Dai and Gu, 2021; Lebenbaum et al., 2021). Conversely, a quarter of adults in multigenerational households experience stress in their living arrangements, especially those of lower income (Cohn et al., 2022). This may be due to overcrowding in the household where lower income families are less likely to afford spaces for all household members (Shannon et al., 2018) or may represent increased stress for adult children who have to care for their aging parents (Brubaker and Brubaker, 1981). As such, multigenerational living may induce maternal depression due to familial conflicts. Overall, the relationship between multigenerational living and maternal well-being remains complex, as the benefits of increased familial support may be offset by the stress and conflict that can arise within larger households (Jones et al., 2025).

This paper explores the causal relationship between multigenerational living and maternal well-being and labor using an instrumental variable for exogenous variation. We use the cohabitation status of the mother and father of the child as an instrument to identify the effect of multigenerational living on maternal employment and mental health. The analysis suggests that multigenerational living increases the likelihood that a mother works but also increases self-reported maternal depression. These findings point to the positive effects of

additional childcare provided by grandparents but also highlight the potential costs associated with increased interpersonal strain and/or elderly care which may offset these gains in terms of overall well-being.

The rest of this paper is organized as follows: first we discuss the existing literature review and contextualize our work’s contribution. Then we describe our data and methods and move into a discussion of our results. In Section 5, we test the robustness of our findings to various specification choices. Section 6 attempts to dig into potential mechanisms for our results, and Section 7 concludes and provides a discussion of the implications of our findings and highlights areas for future research.

2 Literature Review

Employment and mental health have often been studied in tandem given the strong, bidirectional relationship between work conditions, job stability, and psychological well-being. [McKee-Ryan et al. \(2005\)](#) find support for the negative consequences of unemployment on mental health by conducting a meta-analysis on a wide range of literature on this topic. At the same time, poor mental health increases absenteeism and contributes to losses in productivity ([Bryan et al., 2021](#); [De Oliveira et al., 2023](#)). Therefore, maternal employment status is not simply an economic indicator but a critical proxy for underlying mental health conditions. Consideration of both dimensions provides a more detailed and comprehensive understanding of maternal well-being.

The literature on multigenerational living suggests positive effects on maternal employment. [Yu and Cheng \(2025\)](#) find that motherhood decreases likelihood of labor force participation but that this effect is attenuated when the mother resides with her own mother. However, this effect is not observed for the father of the mother. [Sasaki \(2002\)](#) and [Oshio \(2006\)](#) also find higher employment among mothers who live with the grandparents of their child than those who do not. Similarly, [Compton \(2015\)](#) finds that the closer the mother

lives to the grandmother of their child, the more likely she is to have a job. Conversely, among women who do not have children, those who live with their mothers are less likely to work compared to women who live close to but do not co-reside with their mother. [Yang et al. \(2016\)](#) also observe negative effects of multigenerational living among women. Such findings suggest that grandmothers, although providing additional child care support, can also need elderly care which can present stress. In this way, it is not necessarily clear what the effects of multigenerational living are on maternal well-being.

Much of the work on multigenerational living and mental health has focused on its effects for families with elderly and care-dependent parents who live with their adult children ([Pruchno et al., 1997](#); [Brubaker and Brubaker, 1981](#)). Studies that do examine the role of additional child care support from grandparents have found mixed results for maternal labor force participation and wages ([de Valk and Bueno, 2015](#); [Aassve et al., 2012](#); [Yu and Xie, 2018](#)). The relationship between living arrangements and maternal mental health are also mixed and mediated by demographic factors and characteristics of the inter-generational relationship ([Pittman and Boswell, 2008](#); [Kalil et al., 1998](#); [Sonuga-Barke and Mistry, 2000](#)). Among teenage mothers, conflictual relationship with grandparents were predictive of depressive symptoms, but supportive relationships were not associated with better mental health outcomes ([Caldwell et al., 1998](#); [Spencer et al., 2002](#)). Marital status and duration of co-residence also influences the effect of living arrangements as the positive effects of grandparent support were only observed among married mothers who lived in multigenerational households early into the child's life and those not married to but cohabiting with their partners ([Piontak, 2014](#)).

However, most of the existing literature on multigenerational living and maternal well-being is correlational and thus cannot establish causality. The endogeneity of living arrangements is a major concern as mothers with poor mental health may be more likely to live in multigenerational households to receive support from grandparents. Among the papers that attempt to establish causality, there is no clear consensus on the effect of multigenerational

living on maternal well-being. This paper examines the effect of multigenerational living on maternal mental health using various outcomes and a more robust instrumental variable approach to provide a more comprehensive understanding of the relationship between multigenerational living and maternal mental health.

3 Empirical Strategy

3.1 Data

This study uses data from the Future of Families and Child Wellbeing Study by Princeton University, Columbia University, and Notre Dame University. The data is that of a longitudinal survey that follows 4,898 children and their parents from 20 cities across the United States. Specifically, we focus on the mother’s survey which asks the mother of the child about herself and the child. This study employs data from the first five waves of the survey, which were collected when the focal child was ages 1, 3, 5, and 9 between 1999 and 2010.

In every wave, mothers report their living arrangements, including whether they live with the grandparents of the focal child. For the purpose of this analysis, treatment is defined as living with the maternal grandmother. We focus on the maternal grandmother as the relationship between the mother and maternal grandmother is likely to differ from the relationship between the mother and paternal grandmother. Rather than grandfathers, we focus on grandmothers, who are more likely to live with the focal child and provide support for child care ([Livingston, 2013](#)).

The main outcome variable is a constructed binary variable that indicates whether the mother reports depression. The variable follows the Composite International Diagnostic Interview - Short Form (CIDI-SF) criteria for major depressive episodes. In every wave, mothers respond to a series of questions on the CIDI-SF, such as “During past year, been time you felt sad/depressed for more than 2 weeks in row?” and “In 2 weeks, did you lose interest in things that give you pleasure?” Responses to 15 questions are aggregated to

construct the variable of interest. We also examine the effect of multigenerational living on the number of weeks a mother worked in the past year and the mother’s perceived relationship with the father of the child as additional outcomes to better understand the mechanisms through which multigenerational living may affect maternal mental health.

However, there are some concerns for data quality. 4 observations where the maternal grandmother is reported as deceased but the mother still lives with the maternal grandmother are dropped. Additionally, 196 observations where the maternal grandmother is reported deceased in previous waves but not in the current wave are dropped as well. The third wave of the survey only collects information on whether the at least one maternal grandparent is alive. Thus, we impute the living status of the maternal grandmother in the third wave using information from the first and fifth waves. If both grandparents are reported as deceased in the third wave, we impute the maternal grandmother as deceased. If the maternal grandmother is reported as deceased in the second wave and fourth wave, we impute the maternal grandmother as deceased in the third wave. 33 observations where the status of the maternal grandmother is unclear are dropped.

3.2 Empirical Strategy

To estimate the causal effect of multigenerational living on maternal employment and mental health, we use an instrumental variable approach to account for the endogeneity of living arrangements. Specifically, we exploit changes in parental cohabitation to instrument for multigenerational living. Whether or not the mother and the father live together can predict whether a mother lives with the maternal grandmother and provide a source of exogenous variation in living arrangements. We expect mothers who do not live with the father of the child to more likely live with their own mother as is often the case for single mothers. The first stage of the two-stage least squares regression is as follows:

$$Y_{it} = \alpha + \beta \text{LiveTogether}_{it} + \gamma_1 U_{We} + \gamma_2 V_t + \epsilon_{it}$$

where Y_{it} is a binary variable indicating whether the mother in household i at time t lives with the maternal grandmother, $LiveTogether_{it}$ is a binary variable indicating whether the mother lives with the father of the focal child, and U_i and V_t are household and year fixed effects, respectively. Household fixed effects control for time-invariant household characteristics such as race and geographic location, while year fixed effects control for time-varying factors such as changes in the economy and stressors related to the focal child as they grow up.

An instrument is valid if it satisfies the inclusion, exclusion, and monotonicity assumptions. As we show in the results section, parental cohabitation significantly predicts multigenerational living. The F-stat 45.82 is large, indicating a strong instrument. The exclusion restriction may be violated if parental cohabitation has a direct effect on maternal employment or mental health that is not through multigenerational living. Although there is concern for the exclusion criteria without controls, when keeping the wave and the household fixed, much of this concern is alleviated. We also limit our attention to households that have experienced a change in cohabitation status to better isolate the effect of cohabitation from fixed household characteristics. Variation comes from within household changes that are not driven by changes affecting all households in the U.S., making it less likely that the instrument is capturing unobserved factors that directly affect maternal employment or mental health.

The second stage of the two-stage least squares regression is as follows:

$$Y_{it} = \alpha + \beta \widehat{MultigenLiving}_{it} + \gamma_1 U_i + \gamma_2 V_t + \epsilon_{it}$$

where Y_{it} is our outcome of interest for household i at time t reports maternal outcomes, namely employment and mental health. When the outcome is mental health, Y_{it} is an indicator equal to 1 if the mother meets the criteria for depression. $\widehat{MultigenLiving}_{it}$ is the predicted value of multigenerational living from the first stage regression. β provides a local average treatment effect (LATE) of multigenerational living for compliers. Here, compliers

are mothers who decide to live with their mothers, or the maternal grandmother of the child, when they do not live with the father of the child.

4 Results

4.1 First Stage

We first examine the relevance condition of the instrument by regressing whether the mother lives with the maternal grandmother on whether the parents of the child live together. Table 1 shows the results of this first stage regression. The results suggest that parental cohabitation is a strong predictor of multigenerational living where mothers who do not live with the father are 35.5 percentage points more likely to live in a multigenerational household. The regression has an F-statistic of 45.82 suggesting strong relevance of the instrument.

Table 1: First Stage Results

	(1)
LiveTogether	-0.0355***
	(0.0052)
F-stat	45.82
Observations	10987

Standard Errors in Parentheses

* $p < 0.1$ ** $p < 0.05$ *** $p < 0.01$

4.2 Second Stage

Table 2 shows the results of the second stage where column 1 presents the results for the number of weeks worked in the past year, column 2 presents the results for weekly working hours, column 3 presents the results for whether the mother works at all, and column 4 presents the results for whether the mother has depression based on the CIDI-SF criteria.

The results suggest that multigenerational living increases the weeks worked in the past year by 31.12 weeks. Given that the average number of weeks worked in the past year is 35.19 weeks, this is an average 89 percentage increase in the number of weeks worked.

Although we see non-significant effects for weekly working hours, this may be due to some misreporting where some mothers report the number of hours worked in a week despite reporting that they did not work any weeks in the past year. When we look at whether the mother works at all, we find that multigenerational living increases the probability of working at all by 81.17 percentage points. Thus, the increase in weeks worked may be driven by an increase in the extensive margin of working rather than the intensive margin of working.

Turning to mental health outcomes, mothers in multigenerational households are 80.80 percentage points more likely to suffer from depression. Given that the average probability of depression is 0.18, this is an average 449 percentage increase in the probability of depression. We conclude that multigenerational living has a significant negative effect on maternal mental health.

Table 2: Outcomes

	Weeks Worked	Hours Worked	Work At All	Mental Health
MultigenLiving	31.1195** (15.6385)	3.6827 (8.3594)	0.8117*** (0.3081)	0.8080*** (0.3061)
Observations	8419	9624	8419	10196

Standard Errors in Parentheses

* $p < 0.1$ ** $p < 0.05$ *** $p < 0.01$

5 Robustness Checks

5.1 Additional Instrument

Following the likes of [Arpino et al. \(2014\)](#) that used the death of grandparents to predict grand parental support for childcare we use the death of the maternal grandmother as an

additional instrument for multigenerational living. Although the death of the maternal grandmother alone was a weak instrument for multigenerational living, we add it to our main model as a robustness check. Table 3 shows the results of the first stage regression with the additional instrument. Here, the death of the maternal grandmother significantly reduces the probability of living in a multigenerational household by 3 percentage points. The F-statistic is 13.08 which is above the conventional threshold of 10 for a strong instrument.

Table 3: First Stage Results with Death

	(1)
MaternalDeath	-0.0331* (0.0180)
LiveTogether	-0.0266*** (0.0056)
F-stat	13.08
Observations	9979
<i>Standard Errors in Parentheses</i>	
* $p < 0.1$ ** $p < 0.05$ *** $p < 0.01$	

Results from the second stage with the additional instrument are shown in Table 4. The direction and significance of the coefficients are consistent with the previous model where multigenerational living increases maternal employment and increases adverse mental health outcomes. The magnitude of the coefficients are similar as well, although the effect of multigenerational living on depression seems to be slightly attenuated in this model. Overall, the results are robust to the inclusion of the additional instrument.

Table 4: Outcome with Additional Instrument

	Weeks Worked	Hours Worked	Work At All	Mental Health
MultigenLiving	32.5341** (14.3739)	7.9785 (7.8312)	0.8985*** (0.2954)	0.6559** (0.2726)
Observations	8248	9418	8248	9952

Standard Errors in Parentheses

* $p < 0.1$ ** $p < 0.05$ *** $p < 0.01$

5.2 Heterogeneity by Wave

Although we did include year-fixed effects in our main model, we also run separate regressions for each wave to better understand the effect of the child's age on the relationship between multigenerational living, employment, and mental health. That is, we examine whether the effect of multigenerational living changes as the child grows up. Table 5 presents results for yearly weeks worked by wave and Table 6 presents results for depression by wave. The results suggest that the effect of multigenerational living on weeks worked is consistent across waves and always positively significant. Similarly, the effect of multigenerational living on mental health is also consistent across waves. As such, the effect of multigenerational living on maternal employment and mental health is not driven by the age of the child.

Table 5: Weeks Worked by Wave

	Wave 1	Wave 3	Wave 5	Wave 9
MultigenLiving	30.4503* (15.7192)	31.2199** (15.6844)	30.3752* (15.6340)	30.7647* (15.7739)
Observations	8478	8460	8463	8457

Standard Errors in Parentheses

* $p < 0.1$ ** $p < 0.05$ *** $p < 0.01$

Table 6: Mental Health Outcome by Wave

	Wave 1	Wave 3	Wave 5	Wave 9
MultigenLiving	0.7935*** (0.3051)	0.7943*** (0.3026)	0.8013*** (0.3068)	0.8013*** (0.3082)
Observations	10270	10250	10251	10250

Standard Errors in Parentheses

* $p < 0.1$ ** $p < 0.05$ *** $p < 0.01$

5.3 Parental Relationship

There is concern that the negative effect of multigenerational living on maternal mental health may be driven by the mother’s contentious relationship with the father of the child. To examine this possible mechanism, we regress the mother’s perceived relationship with the father of the child on multigenerational living. Table 7 shows the results of this regression. The coefficient on multigenerational living is not statistically significant, suggesting that the negative effect of multigenerational living on maternal mental health is not driven by the mother’s relationship with the father of the child.

Table 7: Relationship with Father

	(1)
MultigenLiving	0.2725 (0.1921)
Observations	10987

Standard Errors in Parentheses

* $p < 0.1$ ** $p < 0.05$ *** $p < 0.01$

We also consider the possibility that the results are driven by the shock of a divorce or breakup rather than purely by multigenerational living. We remove the year of breakup as determined by the the first wave in which the mother reports not living with the father of

the child. Table 8 shows the results of this regression.

Table 8: Shock Removed

	Weeks Worked	Hours Worked	Work At All	Mental Health
MultigenLiving	37.3487 (26.6096)	22.6994 (15.0135)	1.0971* (0.5777)	0.7771 (0.5986)
F-stat	7.079	8.989	7.079	6.207
Observations	6738	7828	6738	8374

Standard Errors in Parentheses

* $p < 0.1$ ** $p < 0.05$ *** $p < 0.01$

We observe the F-stat and notice that without the shock of a breakup, the instrument is weak. This may be attributed to the much smaller number of observations. Consequently, the coefficient of interest is non-significant except for when the outcome variable is whether the mother worked at all, which is significant at the ten percent level. However, the direction of the coefficient on multigenerational living is consistent with the main results where multigenerational living increases weeks worked, the probability of working at all, and the probability of depression. Although the results are not statistically significant, the consistency in the direction of the coefficients provide further evidence for the main results.

5.4 Attrition

Finally, we examine whether attrition is a concern for our analysis. If there are systematic patterns between living arrangements and mothers who do not participate in a survey wave, then our results may be biased. For each wave, we estimate whether multigenerational living, instrumented by parental cohabitation, predicts whether the mother drops out of the survey in that wave. Columns 1-4 in table 9 show the results for this analysis. Although multigenerational living significantly predicts attrition in wave 9, specifically where multigenerational living increases the likelihood that a mother does not respond, there is no

concerning consistent pattern across the waves.

We then examine whether our model predicts if a household ever leaves the survey or not. Limiting the analysis to households that either remain in the survey throughout or permanently attrit after their first non-response, we find that characteristics at the last observed period do not predict whether a household eventually exits the survey. Put together, attrition is not systematically related to prior observable conditions, alleviating concerns about selective dropout biasing our results.

Table 9: Attrition

	Wave 1	Wave 3	Wave 5	Wave 9	Ever Leave
MultigenLiving	0.0494 (0.0689)	-0.0057 (0.0610)	-0.0045 (0.0627)	0.4505*** (0.1173)	0.0000 (0.0000)
Observations	10987	10987	10987	10987	3139

Standard Errors in Parentheses

* $p < 0.1$ ** $p < 0.05$ *** $p < 0.01$

Finally, we consider the possibility of selective survey participation across waves. Households may be more likely to respond when they are in particularly stable or vulnerable states, which could bias our estimates. To address this concern, we again restrict the sample to households that either remain continuously in the survey or permanently attrit after their first instance of non-response, thereby limiting within-household selection over time, and observe the effect of multigenerational living on well-being outcomes. Table 10 present results from this analysis. The estimates are consistent with the main results in sign and statistical significance, and are similar in magnitude across all outcomes.

Table 10: Robustness to Selective Attrition

	Weeks Worked	Hours Worked	Work At All	Mental Health
MultigenLiving	29.0696** (14.5939)	2.1948 (7.8050)	0.7464*** (0.2837)	0.6304** (0.2677)
F-stat	23.741	26.224	23.741	27.278
Observations	7682	8770	7682	9228

6 Possible Mechanisms

Given that multigenerational living increases maternal unemployment but has negative impacts on mental health and that these estimates are LATE, it is possible that, for the marginal mother, their mental health challenges are not severe enough to prevent them from working. However, those who live with their own mother are presented with greater stressors, such as but not limited to elderly care, an antagonistic mother-daughter relationship, overcrowding in the household, and increased work. Put differently, estimates from the IV strategy compares mothers who both experience the same shock of a breakup but differ in whether this cause them to live with the maternal grandmother. Thus, the results suggest that among mothers who experience separation from the father of the child, those who live with the maternal grandmother are more likely to work but also more likely report poor mental health outcomes.

INCLUDE RESULTS BY INCOME STATUS? [if poor mental health only increases for lower-income folks, could suggest it's work driving things rather than family stress] ANYTHING ABOUT AGE OF MOTHER/OTHER KIDS/GRANDMA? EVEN IF RESULTS ARE NOT SIGNIFICANT DUE TO LOW SAMPLE SIZE IT COULD BE HELPFUL.

7 Discussion

The results of an IV analysis suggest that multigenerational living increases maternal employment but also increases the probability of self-reported depression. We instrument for multigenerational living using parental cohabitation to create exogenous variation in living arrangements. The results are robust to the inclusion of an additional instrument, the death of the maternal grandmother, and are consistent across waves.

The large increase in maternal employment may be attributed to the additional child care support provided by the maternal grandmother. Given that we focus specifically on the maternal grandmother as the source of multigenerational living, the effect of child support should especially be salient as they are the most likely of the grandparents to live to provide assistance to the mother of the child. However, it also may be that mothers in multigenerational households are burdened with an additional dependent, and thus face financial stress. Moreover, the increase in maternal depression can be driven by the factors such as the additional stress of living in a denser household or the burden of taking care of an elderly parent. However, our analysis is unable to identify these specific mechanisms due to limitations in the survey data. Future work can explore these mechanisms by examining household density and the health of the maternal grandmother as mediating factors.

Our analysis is limited in that the results are only generalizable to mothers who experience separation from the father of the child and differ in whether they live with the maternal grandmother. Future research should explore the effect of multigenerational living on maternal employment and mental health for a broader population of mothers using different methodology. Additionally, future research should consider the possibility of cultural differences in the effect of multigenerational living. In other cultures, it much is more common for multiple generations to live together than the U.S. It is then possible that the effects found in this paper do not replicate outside of the U.S.

Nonetheless, our results provide insight into the multigenerational living and maternal outcomes. As housing prices continue to rise and some families turn to multigenerational

living as a solution to financial pressures, it is important to understand the implications of multigenerational living for mothers.

References

- Aassve, A., B. Arpino, and A. Goisis (2012). Grandparenting and Mothers' Labour Force Participation: A Comparative Analysis using the Generations and Gender Survey. *Demographic Research* 27, 53–84.
- Arpino, B., C. D. Pronzato, and L. P. Tavares (2014). The effect of grandparental support on mothers' labour market participation: An instrumental variable approach. *European Journal of Population* 30(4), 369–390.
- Brubaker, T. H. and E. Brubaker (1981). Adult Child and Elderly Parent Household: Issues in Stress for Theory and Practice. *Alternative Lifestyles* 4(2), 242–256.
- Bryan, M. L., A. M. Bryce, and J. Roberts (2021). The effect of mental and physical health problems on sickness absence. *The European journal of health economics* 22(9), 1519–1533.
- Caldwell, C. H., T. C. Antonucci, and J. S. Jackson (1998). Supportive/Conflictual Family Relations and Depressive Symptomatology: Teenage Mother and Grandmother Perspectives. *Family Relations*, 395–402.
- Cohn, D., J. M. Horowitz, R. Minkin, R. Fry, and K. Hurst (2022, Mar). *Financial Issues Top the List of Reasons U.S. Adults Live in Multigenerational Homes*. Pew Research Center.
<https://www.pewresearch.org/social-trends/2022/03/24/financial-issues-top-the-list-of-reasons-u-s-adults-live-in-multigenerational-homes/>.
- Compton, J. (2015). Family proximity and the labor force status of women in canada. *Review of Economics of the Household* 13(2), 323–358.
- CSP Global (2020). *The Evolution of American Family Structure*. CSP Global.

<https://online.csp.edu/resources/article/the-evolution-of-american-family-structure/>.

Dai, X. and N. Gu (2021). The Impact of Social Capital on Mental Health: Evidence from the China Family Panel Survey. *International Journal of Environmental Research and Public Health* 19(1), 190.

De Oliveira, C., M. Saka, L. Bone, and R. Jacobs (2023). The role of mental health on workplace productivity: A critical review of the literature: C. de oliveira et al. *Applied health economics and health policy* 21(2), 167–193.

de Valk, H. A. and X. Bueno (2015). Living Arrangements, the Crisis and Mother’s Participation in the Labour Market. In *Demographic analysis of Latin American immigrants in Spain: From Boom to Bust*, pp. 155–180. Springer.

Gianfredi, V., M. Beran, A. Koster, S. J. Eussen, A. Odone, C. Signorelli, N. C. Schaper, S. Köhler, H. Bosma, P. C. Dagnelie, et al. (2021). Association between Social Network Characteristics and Prevalent and Incident depression: The Maastricht Study. *Journal of Affective Disorders* 293, 338–346.

Jones, A., D. Pugh, V. Bell, and K. K.-Y. Wong (2025). Multigenerational Living and Mental Health Outcomes of Working-Age Adults and Children—A Scoping Systematic Review. *Health & Social Care in the Community* 2025(1), 7513142.

Kalil, A., M. Spencer, S. Spieker, and L. Gilchrist (1998, 10). Effects of Grandmother Coresidence and Quality of Family Relationships on Depressive Symptoms in Adolescent Mothers. *Family Relations* 47, 433.

Keene, J. R. and C. D. Batson (2010). Under one roof: A review of research on intergenerational coresidence and multigenerational households in the united states. *Sociology Compass* 4(8), 642–657.

- Lebenbaum, M., A. Laporte, and C. de Oliveira (2021). The Effect of Mental Health on Social Capital: An Instrumental Variable Analysis. *Social Science & Medicine* 272, 113693.
- Livingston, G. (2013, Sep). Grandparents living with or serving as primary caregivers for their grandchildren.
- McKee-Ryan, F., Z. Song, C. R. Wanberg, and A. J. Kinicki (2005). Psychological and physical well-being during unemployment: a meta-analytic study. *Journal of applied psychology* 90(1), 53.
- Olito, F. (2019). *How the Divorce Rate has Changed Over the Last 150 Years*. Business Insider. <https://www.businessinsider.com/how-divorce-rate-has-changed-over-150-years-2019-1>.
- Oshio, T. (2006). Coresidence with parents and a wife's decision to work in japan akiko s. oishi'. *The Japanese Journal of Social Security Policy* 5(1).
- Paul, T., R. Kochhar, D. Cohn, J. S. Passel, G. Velasco, S. Motel, and E. Patten (2011, October). *Fighting Poverty in a Tough Economy, Americans Move in with Their Relatives*. Pew Research Center. <https://www.pewresearch.org/wp-content/uploads/sites/20/2011/10/Multigenerational-Households-Final1.pdf>.
- Piontak, J. R. (2014). Household Composition and Maternal Depression: Examining the Role of Multigenerational Households. *Journal of Family Issues* 37(7), 947–969.
- Pittman, L. D. and M. K. Boswell (2008). Low-Income Multigenerational Households: Variation in Family Functioning by Mothers' Age and Race/Ethnicity. *Journal of Family Issues* 29(7), 851–881.
- Pruchno, R. A., C. J. Burant, and N. D. Peters (1997). Coping Strategies of People Living

- in Multigenerational Households: Effects on Well-being. *Psychology and Aging* 12(1), 115–124.
- Sasaki, M. (2002). The causal effect of family structure on labor force participation among Japanese married women. *Journal of human Resources*, 429–440.
- Shannon, H., C. Allen, M. Clarke, D. Dávila, L. Fletcher-Wood, S. Gupta, K. Keck, S. Lang, R. Ludolph, and D. A. Kahangire (2018). *Web Annex A: Report of the systematic review on the effect of household crowding on health*. World Health Organization.
- Smith, K. (2000). Who’s Minding the Kids? Child Care Arrangement Fall 1995. *Current Population Reports*, 70.
- Sonuga-Barke, E. J. and M. Mistry (2000). The effect of extended family living on the mental health of three generations within two Asian communities. *British Journal of Clinical Psychology* 39(2), 129–141.
- Spencer, M. S., A. Kalil, N. C. Larson, S. J. Spieker, and L. D. Gilchrist (2002). Multigenerational Coresidence and Childrearing Conflict: Links to Parenting Stress in Teenage Mothers Across the First Two Years Postpartum. *Applied Developmental Science* 6(3), 157–170.
- Takeda, Y., I. Kawachi, Z. Yamagata, S. Hashimoto, Y. Matsumura, S. Oguri, and A. Okayama (2004). Multigenerational Family Structure in Japanese society: Impacts on Stress and Health Behaviors Among Women and Men. *Social Science & Medicine* 59(1), 69–81.
- Yang, C., H. Fu, and L. Li (2016). The effect of family structure on female labor participation—empirical analysis based on the 2011 China health and retirement longitudinal study. *Asian Social Work and Policy Review* 10(1), 21–33.

- Yu, J. and C. Cheng (2025). Motherhood and employment in china: Gender asymmetries in multi-generational families. *Social Forces* 103(3), 948–969.
- Yu, J. and Y. Xie (2018). Motherhood Penalties and Living Arrangements in China. *Journal of Marriage and Family* 80(5), 1067–1086.